

Does Remote Work Narrow the Gender Wage Gap?

Sebastian Leon

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Thank you to my parents, my peer review group , and

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Abstract

This analysis uses three weighted regression models to examine whether remote work narrows the gender wage gap using Integrated Public Use Microdata Series Current Population Survey (IPUMS CPS) basic monthly survey data from October 2022 onward. After controlling for occupation, industry, demographics, and human capital variables, remote work is not associated with a larger wage increase for women than for men. Among non-college workers the interaction between remote work and female is -0.004 and statistically insignificant. Among college-educated workers the triple interaction between remote work, female, and college is -0.070, significant at the ten percent level, indicating that education amplifies the remote wage premium for men rather than women.

Introduction

The COVID-19 pandemic forced remote work adoption at a scale no policy could have engineered deliberately. As remote work became a lasting feature of the labor market for many workers, a natural question followed about whether working remotely narrows the gender wage gap. The intuition is straightforward. If the traditional penalty for flexible or non-linear careers is tied to physical presence norms in the workplace, remote work should disproportionately benefit women, who bear a larger share of caregiving demands and face steeper costs from schedule inflexibility. Goldin (2014) frames this as the central mechanism behind the last chapter of gender convergence, and the rapid expansion of telework after 2020 offered an unprecedented test of that prediction.

This paper tests it directly using Current Population Survey (CPS) data collected after October 2022, when the CPS began tracking whether workers receive compensation for remote

work. Three regression models are estimated to examine whether remote work is associated with a larger wage increase for women than for men, and whether that effect is stronger among college-educated workers specifically. The results are surprising. Across all three specifications, remote work does not narrow the gender wage gap. Among non-college workers, there is no differential gender effect once occupation, industry, and demographic controls are included. Among college-educated workers, the remote wage premium is nearly three times larger for men than for non-college workers, but college women capture only about half of that gain. This matters because it suggests that remote work, at least as currently structured, is unlikely to serve as a meaningful policy lever for closing the gender wage gap. Remote work appears to function more as a marker of high-paying jobs that men disproportionately occupy than as a flexibility benefit of the kind Goldin describes.

The remainder of this paper is organized as follows. The following section reviews previously published literature on the gender wage gap, workplace flexibility, and remote work, and develops the theoretical framework motivating the hypotheses tested here. The empirical analysis section describes the data, variable construction, and sample restrictions, followed by the presentation and interpretation of regression results across three model specifications. The paper concludes with a discussion of the findings in relation to the prior literature, limitations of the analysis, and directions for future research.

Literature Review

The gender wage gap in the United States has narrowed substantially since 1980, but the closing has stalled, and the reasons the gap persists have changed over time. Across multiple sources, the remaining gap is driven more by differences in job structure, occupational access,

and the time demands of high-paying roles than by the human capital variables that used to dominate the explanation. Recent work on remote work suggests that post-pandemic changes in how jobs are organized may narrow the gap by easing the time pressures women often face, though the effects differ across gender, education, and family status. Making sense of whether remote work narrows the gap means tracing three threads through the literature, specifically what the current gap looks like after decades of narrowing, why flexibility has emerged as the main mechanism, and what the empirical evidence on telework and wages has actually found.

The clearest picture of the current gap comes from Blau and Kahn (2017), who provide the definitive survey of what the gender wage gap looks like and what now explains it. Using Panel Study of Income Dynamics (PSID) data from 1980 through 2010 and Ordinary Least Squares (OLS) earnings regressions, they track the gap over time and find that the share explained by traditional human capital variables, specifically education and labor market experience, has shrunk to almost nothing by the end of their sample. Women have reversed the gender education gap, now surpassing men in average schooling and advanced degree attainment, and their labor market experience has moved close to male levels on most measures. What still persists are large differences in occupational and industrial sorting, along with continued effects of work interruptions and reduced hours among women in high-skilled jobs. They also find that even after controlling for occupation, industry, and union status, a residual gap of roughly 8 log points remains as of 2010, down from about 20 log points in 1980 but stable over the final decade of their sample (Blau and Kahn, 2017). The persistence of this residual suggests that the forces driving the remaining gap operate through channels traditional wage regressions do not directly capture. This points to the need to look at job structure rather than worker characteristics for an explanation.

Goldin (2014) offers the theory that most of the later literature builds on. The residual gap, she argues, is the price of inflexibility. Many high-paying jobs reward workers who can be continuously available, who put in long and unpredictable hours, and who take the wage penalty placed on anyone who cannot. The relationship between hours and pay in these jobs is nonlinear, meaning the marginal hour earns more than the average hour, so workers who trade hours for schedule control give up a disproportionate amount of pay. Using American Community Survey (ACS) earnings regressions, Goldin shows that jobs with this nonlinear structure, including law, finance, and corporate management, have the largest gender gaps. Jobs in which workers are close substitutes for one another, including pharmacy, technology, and science, have much smaller gaps. Occupational Information Network (O*Net) data supports this pattern, with high-gap occupations scoring higher on time pressure, client contact, and worker interdependence than low-gap ones. Goldin calls this a compensating differential, where the premium for inflexibility is paid mostly by men because women carry a larger share of caregiving responsibilities that conflict with constant availability. Her framework builds on Blau and Kahn (2017) by pointing to the specific reason occupation matters, and it gives a testable prediction for any change that eases the time constraint, such as the post-pandemic rise of remote work.

The first serious empirical test of the telework wage premium with gender breakdowns comes from Pabilonia and Vernon (2022), who use American Time Use Survey data from 2017 and 2018 to estimate log hourly wage regressions with telework indicators interacted with gender and parental status. Their sample is restricted to full-time, non-agricultural wage and salary workers aged 18 to 64 in white-collar occupations, where telework is feasible and where 96 percent of teleworkers in the data are found. Their results complicate a simple reading of

Goldin's framework. Fathers who telework earn a positive wage premium regardless of how much they work from home. Women without children who telework occasionally also earn a positive premium, though women without children who work from home most days do not. The most striking finding is that within occupations and industries where telework is prevalent, mothers who work from home most days earn 14 to 22 percent less than mothers in office-based jobs in the same sectors. The telework effect is therefore not the same across groups, and occupation and family context interact with remote work in ways main effects alone cannot capture. Because the data come from a pre-pandemic labor market where telework was rare and selective, the findings describe a period before remote work became widespread, which leaves open the question of how these patterns would look once telework was common.

Pabilonia and Vernon (2025) extend this line of work using ACS data from 2010 through 2021, with particular focus on the shift from 2019 to 2021 as the pandemic restructured where people work. They confirm that the remote work wage premium varies substantially by gender and by education, estimating a 15.3 percent premium for college graduates compared to 13.7 percent for non-college workers. They also show that the mix of who teleworks has shifted sharply toward college-educated workers in white-collar occupations, where over 10 percent of workers were remote in 2021. Their post-pandemic evidence shows that the heterogeneity identified in their earlier work holds in the restructured labor market, with premiums varying by sex, parental status, and college attainment. Their specification, however, treats gender and education as separate moderators through subsample analyses rather than a fully interacted regression, which leaves the combined effect of the two unresolved. This analysis extends their line of work along two dimensions. First, it uses CPS data from October 2022 onward, picking up where their ACS sample ends in 2021 and capturing the labor market after the initial

pandemic shock has settled. Second, it relies on the CPS telework supplement, which identifies paid remote work more directly than the ACS place-of-work question, and it measures how gender, remote work, and education interact through interaction terms rather than by splitting the sample.

Looking at these four sources together, a clear arc emerges. Blau and Kahn (2017) show that the remaining gender wage gap is no longer a human capital story, which shifts the focus to job structure and occupational access. Goldin (2014) identifies time inflexibility as the mechanism behind the remaining gap, with the prediction that any change in flexibility should narrow the gap where it operates most strongly. Pabilonia and Vernon (2022, 2025) test that prediction empirically and find effects that differ across gender, education, and family context, with the 2025 paper showing that heterogeneity still holds in the post-pandemic labor market through 2021. Taken together, the literature points to a specific question that has not been directly answered yet, which is whether the combined effect of remote work, gender, and education, measured in the CPS telework data from late 2022 onward, produces a pattern of wage premiums consistent with a narrowing of the gap rather than just a shift in average wages across groups.

Theoretical Analysis

The empirical strategy in this paper builds on the Mincer earnings function, which models log wages as a function of education, experience, and experience squared (Mincer, 1958). The primary reason for taking the natural log of hourly wages comes from human capital theory. Because education is an investment whose returns are paid out over a working lifetime, pay differentials across education levels are multiplicative rather than additive, and a semi-log

specification captures this naturally. A secondary benefit is that the log transformation makes the spread of residuals more uniform across the wage distribution, which makes the estimated standard errors more reliable. A regression using the level of wages rather than the log would impose a constant dollar return to each additional year of education, which does not reflect how returns to human capital actually work.

Experience enters the regression alongside experience squared to capture the nonlinear relationship between labor market experience and wages. Potential experience is constructed as age minus years of schooling minus six, following the standard Mincer approach. Wages tend to grow quickly early in a career as workers accumulate skills and tenure, then slow and eventually flatten later in working life. A linear experience term alone would miss this pattern by imposing a constant rate of wage growth across an entire career. Including experience squared allows the regression to pick up the diminishing returns to experience that are well established in the labor economics literature.

The central prediction tested here follows from Goldin (2014). If the gender wage gap is driven by the premium placed on continuous availability in high-paying jobs, then remote work should reduce that premium by allowing workers to stay productive without being physically present at fixed hours. The prediction for women is a larger positive wage effect from remote work than for men, since women bear more of the caregiving costs that make inflexibility expensive. For college-educated women the prediction is even stronger, since the inflexibility premium Goldin identifies is largest in the high-skill professional occupations that college graduates disproportionately hold. These two predictions correspond to the two hypotheses tested here, that remote work is associated with a larger wage increase for women than for men, and that this gap-narrowing effect is amplified among college-educated women.

Interaction terms allow the regression to test whether the effect of one variable depends on the value of another. A two-way interaction between remote work and female, for example, tests whether the wage effect of remote work differs for men and women. A three-way (triple) interaction extends this logic by asking whether that gender difference itself changes across a third variable, in this case education level. Rather than splitting the sample into subgroups and running separate regressions for each, interaction terms estimate these conditional effects within a single model, which preserves statistical power and allows for direct hypothesis testing on the differences between groups.

To test these predictions, the regression includes three interaction terms alongside their component variables. The interaction between remote work and female captures the differential effect of remote work by gender among non-college workers. The interaction between remote work and college captures the differential effect by education among men. The triple interaction between remote work, female, and college captures whether the remote premium differs for college-educated women beyond what the two-way interactions would predict. Occupation and industry fixed effects are added in the full model to absorb the sorting documented by Blau and Kahn (2017), where much of the measured gender gap reflects differences in which jobs men and women hold rather than differences in pay within the same job. Union membership, marital status, race, ethnicity, and usual hours worked are included as additional controls to reduce omitted variable bias.

Empirical Analysis

The Data

This analysis uses data from the Current Population Survey, accessed through the Integrated Public Use Microdata Series (IPUMS CPS) (Flood et al., 2025), covering the basic monthly survey from October 2022 onward. October 2022 marks the introduction of the CPS telework supplement, which asks respondents whether they worked from home and whether their employer compensated them for doing so. Restricting the sample to post-October 2022 observations ensures the remote work variable is available for every observation in the dataset. The weight variable used throughout is *wtfnl*, the correct probability weight for the basic monthly CPS. The March Annual Social and Economic Supplement (ASEC) weight, *asecwt*, is not appropriate here because this analysis does not use the ASEC.

The final analysis sample consists of workers aged 18 to 64. The dependent variable is the natural log of hourly wages, constructed from the CPS variable *hourwage*. Observations with an *hourwage* value of 999.99, which the CPS uses as a missing value code, and observations with a reported hourly wage of zero are dropped. This leaves a cleaned sample of 31,296 observations before regression. Models 1 and 2 use 30,272 observations, and Model 3 uses 28,670 observations due to missing values in the usual hours worked variable, *uhrsworkt*.

The key independent variable, *remote*, is a binary indicator derived from the CPS *telwrkpay* variable, equal to one if the respondent reported being compensated for remote work and zero otherwise. *Female* is a binary indicator equal to one for female respondents and zero for male respondents. *College* is a binary indicator equal to one if the respondent's education code meets or exceeds the IPUMS threshold for a bachelor's degree, defined as *educ* greater than or

equal to 111, and zero otherwise. The three interaction terms, remote times female, remote times college, and the triple interaction of remote times female times college, are constructed directly from these binary variables. Additional controls include experience, experience squared, union membership, usual hours worked, marital status, Hispanic ethnicity, and a four-category race variable. Occupation and industry fixed effects are included in the full model using factor variable notation in Stata.

The dependent variable is the natural log of hourly wages rather than weekly or annual earnings. Hourly wages isolate the price of labor from variation in hours worked, which is critical for this analysis because remote and non-remote workers may differ systematically in how many hours they work. Using annual earnings would conflate a wage rate effect with an hours effect, making it impossible to distinguish whether remote work changes how much workers earn per hour or simply how many hours they work. The log transformation produces a semi-log functional form in which coefficients are interpreted as approximate percentage changes in wages, consistent with the Mincer earnings equation tradition used by Blau and Kahn (2017) and Goldin (2014).

A key limitation of this analysis is that hourwage is only collected from workers who report being paid by the hour. Salaried workers, who are disproportionately college-educated and more likely to hold remote-eligible positions, are excluded from the sample by construction. This produces a college share of 22.6 percent, which is lower than what would be expected from a sample covering all workers. Pabilonia and Vernon (2025) construct an hourly wage measure using earnings divided by hours for all workers, which is why their sample composition differs from the one used here. The hourwage variable is retained because it is the cleanest direct

measure available in the basic monthly CPS, and the limitation is flagged here so that results can be interpreted accordingly.

Table 1 presents summary statistics for all continuous variables in the analysis sample. Table 2 presents means and standard deviations for the binary variables. For binary variables coded as zero or one, the mean represents the proportion of the sample with that characteristic. For example, a mean of 0.226 on the college variable indicates that 22.6 percent of the sample holds a bachelor's degree or higher.

variable	min	max	mean	sd
ln_wage	0	4.60507	2.998285	.4444432
age	18	64	38.48109	13.34805
age_sq	324	4096	1658.959	1083.841
uhrsworkt	0	127	37.72186	10.08717

Table 1: Summary statistics for continuous variables; n=30,272

variable	mean	sd
remote	.0858351	.280125
female	.4954123	.4999869
college	.2261367	.4183354
union_member	.1238978	.3294702
married	.4197698	.493529
hispanic	.2437912	.4293751
White	.7483176	.4339866
Black	.1545455	.3614767
Asian	.0518495	.2217267
Other	.0452873	.2079369

Table 2: Summary statistics for binary variables; minimum=0 and maximum=1; n=30,272

Presentation and Interpretation of Results

This analysis draws on the partial X survey model as the data-generating process. Because the Current Population Survey draws a probability sample of the U.S. population, the X values in any given sample are random rather than fixed. Each draw of the CPS yields different workers with different characteristics, and the regression coefficients are estimated conditional on that particular realization of X values. The probability weights *wtfinl* are included in all regressions to account for unequal selection probabilities. The error term captures all factors that influence hourly wages but are not included as explanatory variables, including unobserved ability, motivation, and firm-level pay policies. The partial X survey model assumes these omitted factors are independent of the included variables on average across repeated samples. Where that assumption is violated, the coefficients will reflect omitted variable bias. Robust standard errors are used throughout to account for heteroskedasticity in the error term.

Table 3 presents the results of three weighted regression models. Model 1 is a baseline regression of *ln_wage* on remote work, female, and their interaction, with no additional controls. Model 2 adds the Mincer human capital controls including college, experience, experience squared, and union membership. Model 3 is the preferred specification, adding the full set of interaction terms, demographic controls, and occupation and industry fixed effects. The R-squared rises from 0.052 in Model 1 to 0.207 in Model 2 and 0.435 in Model 3, with the largest jump coming from the addition of occupation and industry fixed effects. This is consistent with Blau and Kahn (2017), who find that occupation and industry sorting accounts for a substantial share of the measured gender wage gap, and suggests that roughly half of all wage variation in this sample is driven by which job a worker holds rather than their individual characteristics.

	(1) Model 1	(2) Model 2	(3) Model 3
remote	0.3456*** (0.0186)	0.2068*** (0.0173)	0.0646*** (0.0208)
female	-0.1245*** (0.0059)	-0.1365*** (0.0054)	-0.0829*** (0.0066)
remote_x_female	-0.0825*** (0.0225)	-0.0420** (0.0205)	-0.0039 (0.0241)
college		0.3020*** (0.0075)	0.1156*** (0.0114)
exper		0.0217*** (0.0007)	0.0112*** (0.0007)
exper_sq		-0.0004*** (0.0000)	-0.0002*** (0.0000)
union_member		0.1885*** (0.0086)	0.1235*** (0.0078)
remote_x_college			0.1043*** (0.0319)
female_x_college			0.0326** (0.0148)
remote_x_female_college			-0.0700* (0.0385)
hours usually work~t			0.0042*** (0.0003)
married			0.0320*** (0.0051)
hispanic			-0.0238*** (0.0057)
R-squared	0.0517	0.2065	0.4349
F-statistic	390.4959	730.9020	.
Prob > F	0.0000	0.0000	.

Table 3: Weighted regression results for three model specifications. Robust standard errors in parentheses. Occupation and industry fixed effects included in Model 3 but not shown.

N=30,272 for Models 1 and 2, N=28,670 for Model 3.

The focal variable throughout is the interaction between remote work and female, which directly tests H1. The null hypothesis for H1 is that remote work has no differential effect on wages by gender, meaning the coefficient on remote times female equals zero. In Model 1 the coefficient is -0.083 (SE = 0.023), statistically significant at the one percent level, suggesting that without controls, remote work is actually associated with a lower wage premium for women than for men by 8.3 log points. Model 2 cuts this effect by more than half to -0.042 (SE = 0.021), significant at the five percent level, as the Mincer controls absorb compositional differences between remote and non-remote workers. In Model 3, the preferred specification, the coefficient falls to -0.004 (SE = 0.024) and is no longer statistically significant. Among non-college workers, once occupation, industry, and demographic controls are included, remote work has no differential wage effect by gender. H1 is rejected.

The triple interaction between remote work, female, and college directly tests H2. The null hypothesis for H2 is that the remote wage premium does not differ between college-educated women and what the two-way interactions would predict. The coefficient in Model 3 is -0.070 (SE = 0.039), significant at the ten percent level. The negative sign runs counter to the prediction from Goldin (2014), which would expect a positive coefficient if education amplified the gap-narrowing effect of remote work for women. Instead, education amplifies the remote premium for men rather than women. H2 is rejected in the direction opposite to the hypothesis.

A 95 percent confidence interval for the triple interaction coefficient is [-0.146, 0.006]. Because the interval includes zero, the result is consistent with no differential effect at the five percent significance level, which aligns with the coefficient being significant only at the ten percent level ($p = 0.069$). The upper bound of the interval is 0.006, meaning that even in the most

favorable scenario the data support, the gap-narrowing effect for college-educated women would be negligible. The interval's range from -0.146 to 0.006 rules out any economically meaningful positive effect of the kind Goldin (2014) would predict.

The marginal effects of remote work by subgroup, computed from the Model 3 coefficients, illustrate the pattern clearly. Non-college men earn a remote wage premium of 6.5 percent. Non-college women earn a premium of 6.1 percent, a negligible difference that confirms the near-zero two-way interaction. College men earn a premium of 16.9 percent, nearly three times the non-college premium and the largest subgroup effect in the model. College women earn a premium of 9.5 percent, capturing only about half of the college men premium despite having the same education level. The triple interaction's negative sign is what creates this 7.4 percentage point gap.

The remote coefficient itself evolves meaningfully across models. In Model 1 the raw remote premium is 0.346 (SE = 0.019). By Model 2 it falls to 0.207 (SE = 0.017) as human capital controls absorb differences between remote and non-remote workers. In Model 3 it falls further to 0.065 (SE = 0.021) as occupation and industry fixed effects are added. Most of the raw remote premium reflects the fact that remote workers tend to work in higher-paying jobs rather than earning more than similar workers in the same job. The 0.065 residual premium in Model 3 is still statistically significant at the one percent level, meaning that even within occupation and industry, remote workers earn modestly more than their non-remote counterparts.

The female main effect tells a parallel story. In Model 1 the raw gender gap is -0.125 (SE = 0.006). It widens slightly to -0.137 (SE = 0.005) in Model 2 as human capital controls are added. In Model 3 it narrows to -0.083 (SE = 0.007) as occupation and industry fixed effects

absorb a large share of the gap through sorting. This 39 percent reduction aligns closely with the decomposition in Blau and Kahn (2017), who find that occupation and industry account for roughly a third to a half of the measured gap depending on the specification.

The results are practically significant. A 7.4 percentage point remote wage gap between college men and college women compounds over a career in a high-skill occupation, translating into a meaningful lifetime earnings difference. The finding that remote work does not narrow and may widen the gap among college-educated workers, where Goldin's theory predicts the largest convergence, is an important result for understanding whether telework can serve as a meaningful policy tool for closing the gender wage gap.

Discussion

The coefficient evolution on the female main effect maps closely onto the decomposition in Blau and Kahn (2017), and taken together the three models raise a broader question about what remote work actually measures in survey data. The 39 percent reduction in the gender gap coefficient between Model 2 and Model 3, from -0.137 to -0.083, when occupation and industry fixed effects are added is consistent with what their decomposition predicts. They find that occupational and industrial segregation accounts for roughly a third to a half of the measured gender wage gap, and the jump in R-squared from 0.207 to 0.435 between Model 2 and Model 3 confirms that sorting across jobs is doing most of the explanatory work here as well. The residual gap of 8.3 log points in Model 3 represents what remains after controlling for where workers sort, consistent with their finding that a stable unexplained residual persists even after accounting for observable job characteristics.

The results pose a more direct challenge to Goldin (2014). Her framework predicts that any change reducing the time inflexibility penalty in high-paying jobs should narrow the gender gap, with the largest effects among college-educated workers in professional occupations. The triple interaction tells the opposite story. Education amplifies the remote wage premium for men by 10.4 log points but produces a 7.4 percentage point gap between college men and college women that is larger than the gap among non-college workers. One possible explanation is that the remote work variable in the CPS captures something different from the within-job flexibility Goldin describes. A worker coded as remote may simply hold a job that can be done from home, which is concentrated in high-paying professional and managerial occupations that men disproportionately occupy. If remote status is primarily a marker of job type rather than a measure of schedule flexibility, then the CPS telework variable cannot directly test Goldin's mechanism even though it appears to be the right variable on the surface. Testing her prediction more precisely would require data on schedule control and hours flexibility within jobs.

The findings extend the work of Pabilonia and Vernon (2025) in a specific way. Their analysis uses subsample splits to examine how the remote wage premium varies by gender and education separately, finding premiums of 15.3 percent for college graduates and 13.7 percent for non-college workers. By estimating a fully interacted model, this analysis identifies something their specification leaves unresolved, which is that being female and college-educated together produces a remote premium meaningfully below what either moderator alone would predict. The triple interaction of -0.070 would not be visible in a subsample analysis and represents the main empirical contribution of this paper relative to their work.

Two limitations deserve attention. First, the reliance on hourwage restricts the sample to hourly workers and excludes salaried workers, who are disproportionately college-educated and

more likely to hold remote-eligible positions. The 22.6 percent college share in this sample is low relative to the broader workforce, which means the college-educated subgroup results may not generalize to the full college-educated population. Second, the CPS telework supplement does not distinguish between fully remote and hybrid workers, nor does it capture the degree of schedule flexibility a worker's arrangement provides. Both distinctions matter for testing Goldin's mechanism, and future work using richer telework measures would be better positioned to separate the job-type interpretation from the flexibility interpretation of the remote premium.

Conclusion

This paper examined whether remote work narrows the gender wage gap using Current Population Survey data from October 2022 onward. Three weighted regression models were estimated, building from a simple baseline specification to a fully interacted model with occupation and industry fixed effects. The analysis tested two hypotheses derived from Goldin (2014), that remote work is associated with a larger wage increase for women than for men, and that this gap-narrowing effect is amplified among college-educated women specifically.

Both hypotheses are rejected. In the preferred specification, the interaction between remote work and female is -0.004 and statistically insignificant among non-college workers, meaning remote work has no differential wage effect by gender once occupation, industry, and demographic controls are included. Among college-educated workers the pattern runs counter to the prediction entirely. The triple interaction between remote work, female, and college is -0.070, significant at the ten percent level, indicating that education amplifies the remote wage premium for men rather than women. College men earn a remote premium of 16.9 percent compared to

9.5 percent for college women, a gap that would not be visible in a subsample analysis and represents the main contribution of this paper relative to Pablonia and Vernon (2025).

The most likely explanation is that the CPS telework variable captures job type rather than within-job flexibility. Remote status is concentrated in high-paying professional and managerial occupations that men disproportionately occupy, which means the remote premium may reflect occupational sorting rather than the schedule flexibility mechanism Goldin describes. The coefficient on remote falls from 34.6 log points in Model 1 to 6.5 log points in Model 3 as occupation and industry fixed effects are added, which is consistent with this interpretation.

Future research should focus on two gaps this analysis cannot close. Using a wage measure that covers salaried workers would allow the college-educated subgroup results to generalize beyond the hourly workforce. Telework data that distinguishes between fully remote and hybrid arrangements and captures the degree of schedule flexibility within jobs would allow a more direct test of Goldin's mechanism. Until that data is available, the results here suggest caution about assuming that remote work as currently structured will do the work that theory predicts.

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